

Chapter 21

Deriving OV word order in Kono

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The Mande languages are known for their strict SOVX word order (Gensler 1994, Creissels 2005, Nikitina 2009). Following analyses laid out in Koopman (1992) and Smith (2022, 2024b), we argue that Kono's surface OV word order is derived from underlying VO order. Evidence includes a class of complex predicates whose internal arguments obligatorily follow the verb, CP complements which occur post-verbally, and coordinated direct objects, in which the coordinator and second conjunct can occur post-verbally. The internal arguments of canonical verbs raise for Case-licensing, while the internal arguments of complex predicates remain post-verbal as they are Case-licensed by their encoding adposition.

1 Introduction

The Mande languages of West Africa have been noted for their strict SOVX word order (Gensler 1994, Creissels 2005, Nikitina 2009). In this paper we suggest that Kono (ISO 639-3 kno), a Mande language spoken in Sierra Leone, has canonical O-V word order, which surfaces only in a specific (albeit frequent) context, namely with DP objects of canonical verbs. We show three contexts in which the verb precedes its internal argument, including particle-verb-like constructions (V- [O – P_{rt}]), verbs with CP complements, and split direct objects (O₁ - V - *and* O₂). We argue that these non-canonical constructions point towards an underlying VO order.

Typical of the Mande family, Kono has canonical OVX word order, as in (1) where the object *Meli* precedes the verbs *yian* 'introduce' and *yen* 'see.' Dative



objects always appear post-verbally, as in (1a), while (1b) shows a post-verbal temporal adverb, and (1c) shows a post-verbal locative.¹

- (1) a. SOVX - Dative
 Pità à Jòn yànn Mèlì yà.
 Peter PFV John introduce Mary to
 ‘Peter introduced John to Mary.’
- b. SOVX - Temporal Adjunct
 Pità nàà Mèlì yén-fán kùnù.
 Peter PFV Mary saw-FOC yesterday
 ‘Peter saw Mary yesterday.’
- c. SOVX - Locative Adjunct
 Pità nàà Mèlì yén màkìtì yò.
 Peter PFV Mary saw market at
 ‘Peter saw Mary at the market.’

The data in (2) and (3), however, show that the verbs *chian* ‘fear’ and *beya* ‘follow’ obligatorily take their internal argument in a post-verbal position, encoded in a phrase headed by the “particles” *ma* and *fɛ* respectively, which otherwise function as postpositions in the language. The data in (2b) further illustrates that the internal argument cannot precede the verb, whether *ma* surfaces with it or not, while the data in (3) show that the internal argument occurs post-verbally, but can surface above or below various adjuncts.²

- (2) Complex Predicate
- a. Pità nàà chiàn-fán Mèlì mà.
 Peter PFV fear-FOC Mary PRT
 ‘Peter feared Mary.’
- b. *Pità nàà Mèlì (mà) chiàn-fán.
 Peter PFV Mary PRT fear-FOC
 ‘Peter feared Mary.’

¹The third author is a native Kono speaker, and we use his grammaticality judgments. Given that this is new research on the language, we do not have every word glossed.

²Following Kaiser (2011), we mark *fan* as FOC, a focus marker. Further evidence that *fan* is a focus marker is that it cannot co-occur in wh-constructions or with negation, as seen in (10) below. See Smith (2024b) and Smith (2024a) for a similar analysis in Mende.

(3) Complex Predicate

- a. Pità à béyà {kùnù} Mèlì fé {kùnù}.
Peter PFV follow yesterday Mary PRT yesterday
'Peter followed Mary yesterday.'
- b. Pità à béyà {mákìtì yɔ} Mèlì fé {mákìtì yɔ}.
Peter PFV follow market at Mary PRT market at
'Peter followed Mary at the market.'
- c. Pità à béyà {núndɔ} Mèlì fé {núndɔ}.
Peter PFV follow secretly Mary PRT secretly
'Peter secretly followed Mary.'

Descriptively, we propose that Kono has two classes of verbs: the first is represented by verbs like *yian* 'introduce' and *yen* 'see,' while the second is represented by *chian* 'fear' and *beya* 'follow.' We label these classes as canonical verbs and complex predicates respectively. We argue that these classes are distinguished by how the verb's internal argument is case-licensed. Empirically, our objective is to demonstrate that Kono is canonically, but not strictly, OV. Analytically, our objective is to argue that Kono has an underlying VO word order and that its surface OV word order is derived via Case-driven, leftward movement (Kayne 1994, Kandybowicz & Baker 2003).

The analysis for which we argue is set out in Figure 1. In brief, we propose that the verb's internal argument raises from a post-verbal underlying position, surfacing in the specifier position of a Kase Phrase. The subject subsequently raises into a higher position.

The remainder of this paper is structured as follows. Section 2 is background data on Kono, as well as a brief review of analyses of OV word order in Mande languages. Section 3 considers canonical verbs, while Section 4 investigates complex predicates. Section 5 looks at CP complements, and Section 6 introduces coordinated direct objects. Section 7 is a conclusion.

2 Background data

There are roughly 340,000 Kono speakers, mostly in eastern Sierra Leone. Kono is a Western Mande language with two major dialects – Northern Kono and Central Kono (Eberhard et al. 2024) – and is closely related to Vai (Kaiser 2011), though the two languages are geographically separated by Mende. Kono is not taught in the public school system of Sierra Leone, and Kaiser (2011) claims that it is commonly spoken in the home in rural areas, while not spoken as frequently at

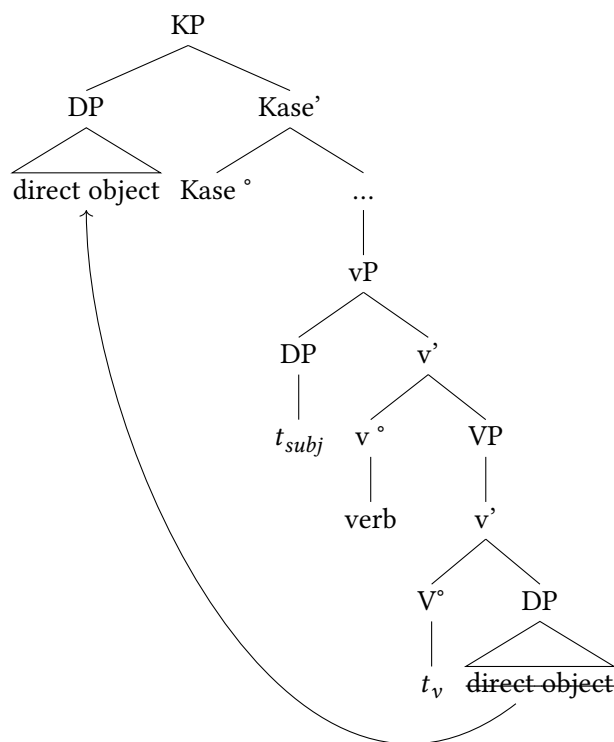


Figure 1: Canonical verb structure

home in urban areas. Given the pressure to speak English in the country, along with the prevalence of Krio and English, the language is at risk of losing speakers due to language shift (cf. Kanu n.d., Gellman 2020 on language loss in Sierra Leone). Manyeh (1983) also asserts that Kono is much less studied than other Sierra Leonean languages such as Mende, Themne, Limba, and Krio, noting that it has a short and poor literary history.

To this point there has been no syntactic analysis of Kono. Descriptive work includes a grammar by Kaiser (2011). Most other work has focused on phonology (Manyeh 1983, Foday-Ngongou 1985), and tense (Jimissa & Mansaray 2022).

Within the broader Mande language family, there is also a dearth of syntactic analyses of word order. We highlight two analyses to give perspective on how Mande OV word order has been analyzed. The first analysis is Nikitina (2019), an

analysis of Wan, a Mande language spoken in the Ivory Coast. Typical of Mande languages, Wan has OV word order.

- (4) Wan (Nikitina 2019: #1)
 È sɔ klā [PP sɔgò tã].
 3SG cloth put:PST horse on
 ‘He covered the horse with cloth (= put cloth on the horse).’

Nikitina argues that Wan is head-final, such that the DP object *sɔ* ‘cloth’ merges into a pre-verbal position. She further argues that all post-verbal material, such as the PP *sɔgò tã* ‘on the horse’ adjoins at the IP level and does not form a constituent with the verb phrase. Her analysis is laid out in Figure 2.

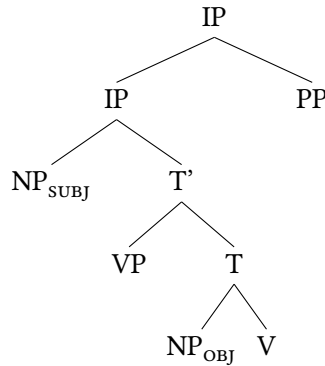


Figure 2: Clausal structure of Wan (adapted from Nikitina 2009: #19)

We argue that this analysis cannot work for Kono. In Kono, a PP modifier of the internal argument can in some cases appear in a pre-verbal position adjacent to the argument (5a) or can surface in an extraposed position to the right of the verb (5b). As seen in (5c), however, the 3rd person plural pronoun *an* can replace the entire DP object, that is, the pre-verbal DP object *mango-nu* ‘the mangoes’ and post-verbal PP modifier *tebu ma* ‘on the table’.³ Based on this, we argue that the DP is a constituent.

- (5) Constituency
 a. Jón á mǎngò-nù tébù mà à àn dàún fǎn.
 John PFV mango-PL table on A AN eat FOC
 ‘John ate the mangoes on the table.’

³See Smith (2024b) for similar data and analysis in Mende.

- b. Jón á mángò-nù à àn dàún fán tébù mà.
 John PFV mango-PL A AN eat FOC table on
 ‘John ate the mangoes on the table.’
- c. Jón á àn dàún fán.
 John PFV 3PL eat FOC
 ‘John ate them.’

The analysis that we set out in this paper is based on Koopman (1992), an investigation of Bambara, and Smith (2024b), an investigation of Mende. Koopman argues that Bambara is underlyingly VO and that its OV word order results from Case-driven movement, with the object moving to SpecVP and the subject moving to SpecIP respectively.

She presents data on two types of verbs – those that select for an NP object and those that select for a PP object. Verbs such as *min* ‘drink’ in (6a) select an NP object which raises from its post-verbal position into SpecVP to be assigned accusative case. Verbs such as *bò* ‘visit’ select for a PP, which does not need to receive case and remains post-verbal (6b).

(6) Bambara (Koopman 1992: 6a and 7a)⁴

- a. Den ye **jin** min.
 child PFV water drink
 ‘The child drank water.’
- b. N bò-ra i ye.
 1SG visit-PFV 2SG at
 ‘I visited you.’

Based on Koopman’s analysis of Bambara, Smith (2022, 2024b) proposes a similar analysis for Mende. Mende is canonically OV but has two classes of complex predicates. The verb *lò* ‘see’ is a canonical verb with a pre-verbal internal argument (7a), while the verb *ja* ‘touch’ takes its internal argument in a post-verbal phrase headed by the preposition *a* (7b), and the verb *lema* ‘forget’ takes its internal argument in a post-verbal phrase headed by the postposition *ma* (7c).

⁴Koopman suggests that the two allomorphs of the PFV aspect marker *ye* and *ra* are conditioned by the licensing of the verb’s internal argument. The marker *-ra* appears with transitive verbs that select a prepositional phrase encoded DO and which do not assign structural accusative case, while the dummy INFL marker *ye* appears with transitive verbs that do assign it.

(7) Mende

- a. Kpàná níké-í-sià lò-í lò.
Kpana cow-DEF-PL see-PFV NF
'Kpana saw the cows.'
- b. Kpàná jà-í lò à níké-í-sià.
Kpana touch-PFV NF at cow-DEF-PL
'Kpana touched the cows.'
- c. Kpàná lemà-í lò níké-í-sià mà.
Kpana forget-PFV NF cow-DEF-PL on
'Kpana forgot the cows.'

Smith (2022, 2024b) argues that the objects of canonical verbs raise for Case, while the objects of complex predicates remain in a post-verbal position, where they are assigned Case by the encoding adposition (cf. Stowell 1981, McFadden 2004, Asbury 2008). In this paper, we extend this analysis of Mende to Kono, proposing that the objects of canonical verbs raise for Case, while the objects of complex predicates do not raise. Instead, they are Case-licensed by their adposition.

3 Canonical verbs

In this section, we investigate canonical verbs, that is, verbs whose internal argument precedes them. In doing so, we compare the variation between OV and VO word order in Kono with Gungbe and Dutch, languages in which an OV – VO variation also surfaces. Crucially, in the tense and aspect configurations that we have studied in Kono, the internal arguments of canonical verbs always precede the verb.^{5,6}

(8) a. Perfective

- Jón nàà mǎngò-nù dàún fán.
John PFV mango-PL eat FOC
'John ate the mangoes.'

⁵While we have not yet investigated every tense / aspect construction, in those that we have, when there is a canonical verb, the order remains OV. See Smith (2024b) for a similar argument for Mende.

⁶We follow Kaiser (2011) in marking é in (8b) and (8c) as being a copula.

b. Progressive

Jón é **mángò-nú** dàún dà.
 John COP mango-PL eat VSUXF
 'John is eating the mangoes.'

c. Future

Jón é **mángò-nú** dàún dà wán.
 John COP mango-PL eat VSUXF FOC
 'John will eat the mangoes.'

This differentiates Kono from the Gbe languages Aboh (2004) and Nupe Kandybowicz & Baker (2003), where the aspectual status of the clause determines whether the object precedes or follows the verb.

(9) Gungbe (Aboh 2004: 192)

a. Imperfective (OV)

Kòjò tò [DP àmì ló] zân.
 Kojo IMPERF [oil SPF[+DEF]] use-NR
 'Kojo is using the specific oil.'

b. Perfective (VO)

Kòjò tò [DP àmì ló].
 Kojo use-PRF [oil SPF[+DEF]]
 'Kojo used the specific oil.'

In Kono, neither an indefinite object (10a), negation (10b), nor a *wh*-construction (10c), affect the word order. Note, further, that in (10b) and (10c), there is no focus marker, and the OV word order remains.

(10) a. Indefinite

Jón nàà **mángò-nù** dàún fán kùnù.
 John PFV mango-PL eat FOC yesterday
 'John ate mangoes yesterday.'

b. Negation

Jón nàà má **mángò-nú** dàún-ní kùnù.
 John PFV NEG mango-PL eat-NEG yesterday
 'John did not eat the mangoes yesterday.'

c. Wh-question

Jón nà **fén** dàún kùnù.
 John PFV what eat yesterday
 ‘What did John eat yesterday?’

Distinguishing Kono from the Germanic languages, whether the verb surfaces in a matrix clause (e.g. (10a)) or an embedded context (11), the internal argument of a canonical verb precedes the verb.

(11) Embedded

Mèlì àà mìn mbé John á nàà mǎngò-nú dàun fǎn.
 Mary 3SG.PFV hear c John 3SG.PFV PFV mango-PL eat FOC
 ‘Mary heard that John ate the mangoes.’

Contrastingly, in Dutch the internal argument follows the verb in a main clause (12a) but precedes it in an embedded clause (12b).

(12) a. Main Clause VO (Zwart 2012: 22)

Jan kust Marie.
 John kisses Mary
 ‘John kisses Mary.’

b. Embedded Clause: OV (Zwart 2012: 24)

dat Jan Marie kust
 that John Mary kisses
 ‘... that John kisses Mary.’

In summary, we suggest that word order for canonical verb constructions in Kono is not influenced by tense, aspect, negation, wh-questions, definiteness/indefiniteness, or whether it surfaces in a matrix or embedded clause. Whenever there is a canonical verb with a non-coordinated DP object, the DP object will occur in a pre-verbal position.

4 Complex predicates

While the internal arguments of canonical verbs in Kono always occur in a pre-verbal position, the internal arguments of complex predicates always occur in a post-verbal position, encoded in an adpositional phrase. The data in (13a) shows that the verb *nyina* ‘forget’ has a post-verbal internal argument encoded in a

phrase headed by the particle *ma*. (13b) shows that the internal argument cannot appear pre-verbally, whether or not the particle surfaces with it, while (13c) demonstrates that the internal argument cannot appear pre-verbally with the particle stranded in a post-verbal position.⁷

(13) Complex Predicates

- a. Jón à nyìnà wàn Mèlì *(ma).
John PFV forget FOC Mary PRT
'John forgot Mary.'
- b. *Jón à Mèlì (ma) nyìnà wàn.
John PFV Mary PRT forget FOC
'John forgot Mary.'
- c. *Jón à Mèlì nyìnà wàn (ma).
John PFV Mary forget FOC PRT
'John forgot Mary.'

As was the case with canonical verbs, tense, negation, and wh-constructions do not alter the position of a complex predicate preceding its DP internal argument.

(14) a. Present Tense

Jón nyìnà dimù Mèlì mà.
John forget DIMU Mary PRT
'John forgets Mary.'

b. Negation

Jón ní má nyìnà Mèlì mà.
John NI NEG forget Mary PRT
'John did not forget Mary.'

⁷Additional complex predicates in Kono include *beya* 'follow,' *chinjinda* 'forgive,' *tuwa* 'touch,' *fenebiwa* 'surprise,' *tawa* 'visit,' *ayinachiwa* 'remember,' *tumuwa* 'need,' *komu* 'obey,' *ka* 'avoid,' *biya* 'chase,' and *suawa* 'defend.' We suggest that these verbs are lexically unpredictable, though there is a great degree of overlap with the two classes of complex predicates in Mende, which include *lema* 'forget,' *to* 'follow,' *manu* 'forgive,' *gola* 'surprise,' *folo* 'visit,' *kpei*, 'need', and *kolo* 'obey', which all take post-verbal objects headed by a postposition. The verbs *ja* 'touch' and *ngi* 'remember' both take post-verbal objects headed by a preposition (see Smith 2022, 2024b for more on the two classes of complex predicates in Mende). Neither the list of Kono nor Mende verbs is comprehensive, and further description and analysis should be fruitful.

c. Wh-Question

Jón nà nyìnà nyò mà.
 John PFV forget who PRT
 ‘Who did John forget?’

d. Embedded Clause

Méli à mín mbé Pità bèyà wàn dèn mùsù né fě.
 Mary PFV hear C Peter follow FOC female child NE PRT
 ‘Mary heard that Peter followed the girl.’

Thus far, we have argued that there are two distinct classes of verbs in Kono – canonical verbs and complex predicates, distinguished by the context in which their internal argument surfaces. We turn next to the particle, investigating its lexical contribution, as well as its relationship to the verb and the argument.

We first highlight that different verbal predicates occur with different particles. For instance, the verb *chian* in (15) can only encode its internal argument with the particle *mà*. The verbs *butuneche* ‘attack’ (16) and *beya* ‘follow’ (17) likewise use the particles *à* and *fě*, respectively. This points to a selection relationship between the verb and the particle.

- (15) Jón chían dimú Méli mà / *à / *fě.
 John fear DIMU Mary PRT PRT PRT
 ‘John fears Mary.’

- (16) Jón à bütùnèché yáá à / *mà / *fě.
 John PFV attack lion PRT PRT PRT
 ‘John attacked the lion.’

- (17) Jón a béyà Méli fě / *à / *mà.
 John PFV follow Mary PRT PRT PRT
 ‘John followed Mary.’

Crucially, each of these particles also functions as a postposition in the language. In the following data, we see that when they function as postpositions *mà* means ‘on’ (18), while *ò* means ‘at’ (19) and *fě* means ‘beside’ (20).

- (18) Jón nàà mǎngò-nú yén fán [tébù mà].
 John PFV mango-PL see FOC table on
 ‘John saw the mangoes on the table.’

- (19) Jón nàà Mèlì yén fán [màchìtì ð].
 John PFV Mary see FOC market at
 ‘John saw Mary at the market.’
- (20) Jón nàà Mèlì yén fán [màchìtì fé].
 John PFV Mary see FOC market beside
 ‘John saw Mary beside the market.’

As noted earlier, we assume that adpositions are able to assign Case. As such, we propose that the objects of complex predicates do not raise for Case, as their encoding particle is a postposition and assigns Case within its functional structure instead (Stowell 1981, McFadden 2004, Asbury 2008).

Our analysis of canonical and complex predicates is laid out as follows. The initial portion of the derivation of the sentence in (21) with the canonical verb *yén* ‘see’ is shown in Figure 3. We propose that the DP internal argument merges as the complement of the verb before raising into SpecKaseP for Case-licensing.⁸

- (21) Pità nàà Mèlì yén fán.
 Peter PFV Mary see FOC
 ‘Peter saw Mary.’

The complex predicate *chian* ‘fear’ in (22) takes a post-verbal internal argument, encoded in an adpositional phrase. Paralleling the movement of the DP object of the canonical verb, we suggest that the DP object of a complex predicate merges as a complement to the encoding postposition, before raising into a specifier of its extended projection, a KasePhrase for Case licensing (Figure 4). Since it no longer needs to raise above the verb for Case-licensing, it yields a V [O PRT] surface structure.

- (22) Pità nàà chian fán Mèlì mà.
 Peter PFV fear FOC Mary PRT
 ‘Peter feared Mary.’

⁸Two reviewers raise the question of where the Kase Phrase is located and how the DO arrives in that position. We acknowledge that the details of this need to be worked out. Our goal at this point is to simply propose that it is Case-driven movement which generates the OV word order. More research is necessary to understand the specific process which generates that order.

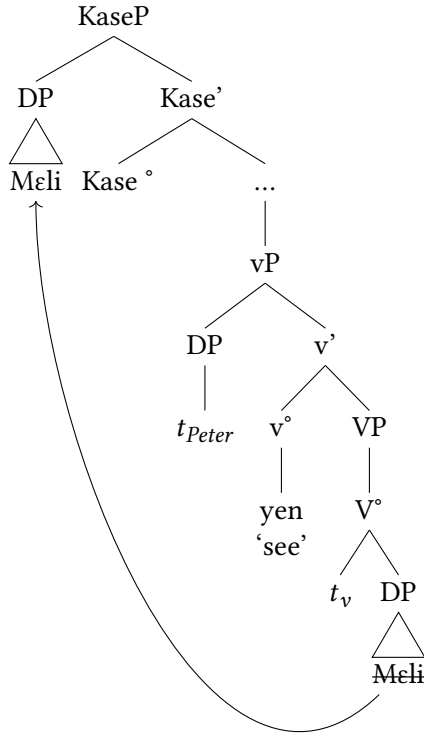


Figure 3: Derivation of canonical verb in Kono

5 CP complements

Thus far we have sought to account for the distinction between canonical (OV) and complex (VO) word orders in Kono. In this section, we turn to CP complements, showing that they obligatorily occur in a post-verbal position. The verb *min* ‘hear’ is a canonical verb, and (23) shows that its DP internal argument *faniya* ‘the lie’ must surface in a pre-verbal position.

- (23) DP Object
 Mèlì à fàniyà mín fán {*fàniyà mà/à/fé}.
 Mary PFV lie hear FOC lie PRT
 ‘Mary heard the lie.’

When the verb’s complement is a CP, instead of a DP, it must surface in a post-verbal position (24). Adopting Stowell’s (1981) Case Resistance Principle, we suggest that since the CP is [+tense], it does not need to receive Case.

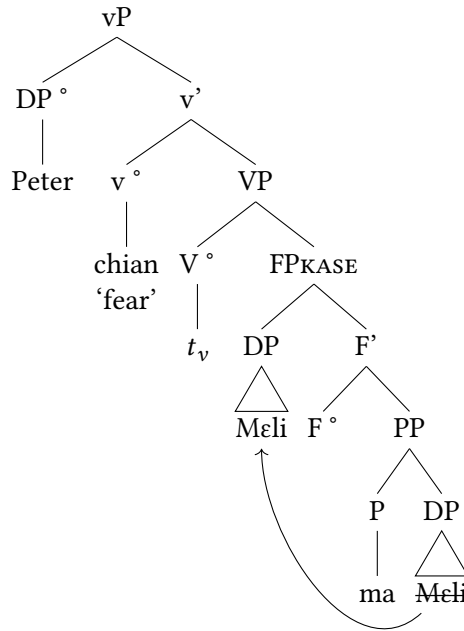


Figure 4: Derivation of complex predicate in Kono

(24) CP Object

Mèli à {mín} [mbé Jón ànná mángò-nú dàún] {*mín}.
 Mary PFV hear c John 3.PFV mango-PL eat hear
 ‘Mary heard that John ate the mangoes.’

The verb *nyina* ‘forget,’ being a complex predicate, has a post-verbal object (25). When the verb in a complex predicate takes a CP complement, the CP surfaces in a post-verbal position, and, significantly, there is no postposition (26).

(25) DP Object

Mèli à {*mángò-nú mà} nyinà {mángò-nú mà}.
 Mary PFV mango-PL PRT forget mango-PL PRT
 ‘Mary forgot the mangoes.’

(26) CP Object

Mèli à nyinà [mbé Jón ànná mángò-nú dàún] (*mà).
 Mary PFV forget c John 3SG.PFV mango-PL eat PRT
 ‘Mary forgot that John ate the mangoes.’

These data are significant for two reasons. First, the post-verbal position of the CP aligns with our proposal that all verbal complements begin in a post-verbal position. Second, the absence of the postposition suggests that its purpose is Case-licensing. If the postposition Case-licenses the verb's internal argument in complex predicate constructions, there must be a mechanism to Case-license the internal arguments of canonical verbs, which we suggest is a KasePhrase whose null head licenses the DP argument that moves into its specifier. We propose similar structures for canonical and complex predicates with CP complements in Figure 5. Whether the verb is canonical, e.g. *min* 'hear' or complex, e.g. *nyina* 'forget,' it selects a CP complement, and since the CP does not need to be Case-licensed, it remains in a post-verbal position.

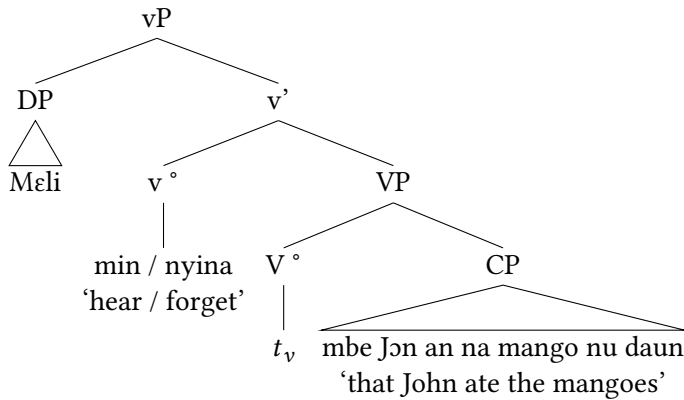


Figure 5: CP complement

6 Coordinated direct objects

We conclude our argument for the underlying head-initial structure of verb phrases in Kono by looking at some intriguing data related to coordinated direct objects. The verb *daun* 'eat' is a canonical verb, and in (27) it has a coordinated direct object *mangu-nu ni dumbi-nu* 'mangoes and oranges.' As expected, the entire coordinated DP can surface in a pre-verbal position in (27a). Intriguingly, the DP object can also be split, with the first conjunct surfacing pre-verbally, while the coordinator and second conjunct remain in a post-verbal position, as seen in (27b). It is ungrammatical for the entire coordinated direct object to remain in a post-verbal position (27c).

- (27) a. Pre-verbal Object
 Jón à mángò-nù ní dùmbí-nù dàún fán.
 John PFV mango-PL and orange-PL eat FOC
 ‘John ate the mangoes and oranges.’
- b. Split Object
 Jón à mángò-nù { *ní } dàún fán { ní } dùmbí-nù.
 John PFV mango-PL and eat FOC and orange-PL
 ‘John ate the mangoes and oranges.’
- c. *Post-verbal Object
 *Jón à dàún mángò-nú ní dùmbí-nú.
 John PFV eat mango-PL and orange-PL
 ‘John ate the mangoes and oranges.’

These data present an interesting puzzle. The basic facts are that one or both DPs can surface in a pre-verbal position, which points towards either the first DP or the entire coordinated phrase raising for Case via phrasal movement. This data aligns with our proposal that DP objects of canonical verbs begin in a post-verbal position and raise for Case. We suggest the derivations in Figure 6 and Figure 7, based on the data in (28). In both cases the canonical verb *daun* ‘eat’ takes a coordinated DP complement to its right. In Figure 6 the specifier of the coordinated phrase, that is the first conjunct *mangu-nu* ‘the mangoes’ raises for Case-licensing itself, while in Figure 7 it pied-pipes the entire coordinated phrase.⁹

- (28) Pre-verbal Object
 Jón à mángò-nù { ní dùmbí-nù } dàún fán { ní dùmbí-nù }.
 John PFV mango-PL and orange-PL eat FOC and orange-PL
 ‘John ate the mangoes and oranges.’

⁹A reviewer raised the question as to whether this analysis in which only one DP raises out of the coordinate structure points to a violation of the Coordinate Structure Constraint (e.g.(27b))? While we don’t have a clear answer for that, we note that this type of construction with a split coordinated DP object occurs in multiple Mande languages, e.g. Mende (Smith 2024b). Mende permits wh-movement, and coordinate structures are strong islands (Smith 2024a). It could be that in Mande languages the CSC holds for $\bar{A}$ -movement but not A-movement, or it could be that these are not true coordinate structures, but rather comitatives. A further question is how the second conjunct is Case-licensed in this construction. Further research is necessary in order to tease out these distinctions.

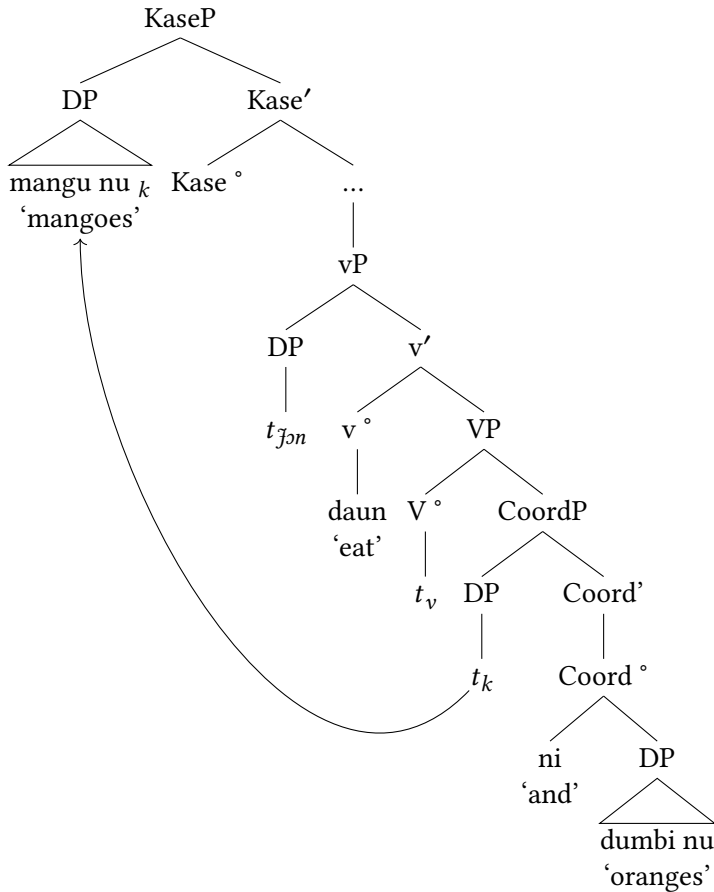


Figure 6: Split coordinated object DP

7 Conclusion

In this paper, we argued that Kono should be classified as canonically, but not strictly, OV. Though most verbs surface with a pre-verbal internal argument, we introduced a class of verbs whose internal argument obligatorily surfaces in a post-verbal position, encoded in a postpositional phrase. Based on work by Koopman (1992) and Smith (2022, 2024b), we suggested that OV word order is derived via leftward movement of the internal argument into the specifier of a KasePhrase. The internal argument of complex predicates does not need to raise, as it is Case-licensed by its postpositional head. Further evidence that this particle is a postposition is that it does not surface when the verb takes

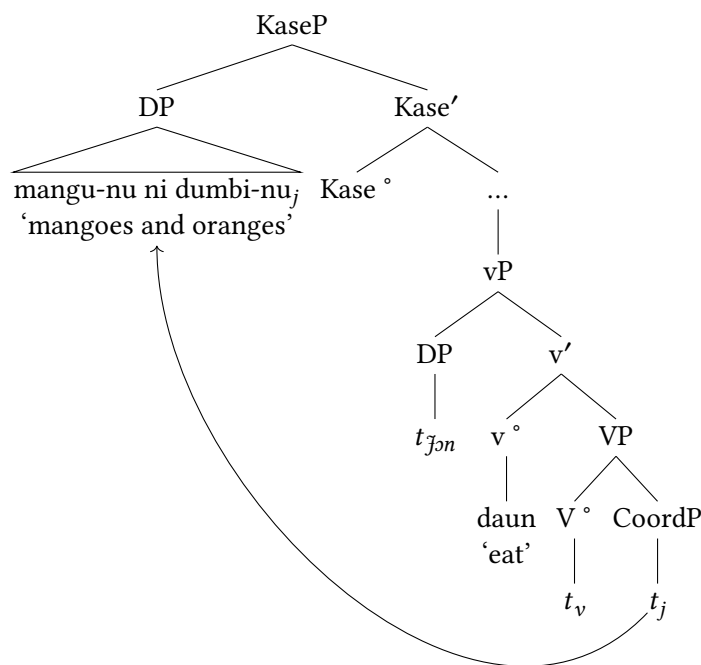


Figure 7: Pre-verbal coordinated object DP

a CP complement, which does not need Case. We showed that complex noun-phrase-internal arguments of canonical verbs behave as predicted with the DP portion raising into a Case position, while the CP remains in-situ in a post-verbal position. We concluded by looking at coordinated direct objects, where we show that at least one conjunct must raise into a pre-verbal position, ostensibly for Case-licensing. It is possible for both conjuncts to raise via pied-piping or for the coordinator and second conjunct to remain in a post-verbal position. How the post-verbal conjunct is Case-licensed is a subject for further research.

This data in this paper aligns with constructions found in many Mande OV languages, as seen in the following examples. In each case, the verb's complement surfaces in a post-verbal position with a postposition.

- (29) Mandinka (adapted from Creissels 2024: #3)
 Kèw-óo làfi-tà kóðòò lá.
 man-D want-CPL money-D P
 'The man wants money.'

- (30) Lorma (adapted from Dwyer 1981: 81-82)¹⁰

Gè wélé mǎsságì-và.

1SG see chief-P

‘I saw the chief.’

- (31) Susu (adapted from Duport 1865)

Um nemu a ma.

1SG forget 3SG P

‘I forget him.’

- (32) Mende

Kpàná lémà-í ló níké-í-sià mà.

Kpana forget-PST NF COW-DEF-PL P

‘Kpana forgot the cows.’

We argue that this data points to a consistent structure across Mande languages, one which greatly resembles Germanic particle verbs, particularly the Danish data in (33b).

- (33) Germanic (Larsen 2014, citing Svenonius 1996)

- a. Norwegian

Vi slapp {ut} hunden {ut}.

we let out the.dogs out

‘We let the dogs out.’

- b. Danish

Vi slapp {*ud} hunden {ud}.

we let out the.dogs out

‘We let the dogs out.’

- c. Swedish

Vi slapp {ut} hunden {*ut}.

we let out the.dogs out

‘We let the dogs out.’

In light of this striking similarity, we will be working on a detailed comparison of particle verbs in Germanic and Hungarian with similar constructions in the Mande languages.

¹⁰Dwyer refers to the verb’s object as ‘the object of a postposition.’

Abbreviations

1	first person	NF	neutral focus
2	second person	NR	nominalizer
3	third person	PFV	perfective
C	complementizer	PL	plural
COP	copula	POST	postposition
DEF	definite	PRT	particle
FOC	focus	SG	singular
IMPERF	imperfect	SPF	specific
NEG	negative	VSUFFIX	verbal suffix

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